



“Is This Fake News?” Examining the Antecedents of Generative AI Chatbot Use for Fact-Checking of News Online

Michael Chan

To cite this article: Michael Chan (25 Feb 2026): “Is This Fake News?” Examining the Antecedents of Generative AI Chatbot Use for Fact-Checking of News Online, Journal of Broadcasting & Electronic Media, DOI: [10.1080/08838151.2026.2637785](https://doi.org/10.1080/08838151.2026.2637785)

To link to this article: <https://doi.org/10.1080/08838151.2026.2637785>



© 2026 The Author(s). Published with license by Taylor & Francis Group, LLC.



Published online: 25 Feb 2026.



Submit your article to this journal [↗](#)



Article views: 2442



View related articles [↗](#)



View Crossmark data [↗](#)



Citing articles: 3 View citing articles [↗](#)

“Is This Fake News?” Examining the Antecedents of Generative AI Chatbot Use for Fact-Checking of News Online

Michael Chan

School of Journalism and Communication, Chinese University of Hong Kong, New Asia College, Shatin, N.T., Hong Kong SAR, China

ABSTRACT

Misinformation remains a significant challenge in many countries worldwide. With the rapid and widespread global adoption of Generative AI (GenAI), this study explores the extent to which individuals use GenAI chatbots to verify the accuracy of news they encountered online and the factors driving this behavior. Drawing on a cross-national survey conducted across 26 countries, the findings reveal that the greater perceived credibility of AI compared to human journalists and increased comfort with AI-produced news predicted GenAI chatbot usage for fact-checking, whereas increased comfort with news produced by journalists with some AI assistance did not.

Societies across the globe have become increasingly polarized, contributing to a gradual erosion of democratic norms, values, and accountability (McCoy et al., 2018). Digital information environments facilitate the spread of misinformation not only in Western democracies (Chan et al., 2025), but also in other parts of the world such as Latin America (Valenzuela et al., 2021) and Africa (Wasserman & Madrid-Morales, 2019). As a result, a substantial global scholarship on misinformation has accumulated in recent years to understand why individuals believe in misinformation, sometimes colloquially called “fake news” (Ecker et al., 2022); how they judge the veracity of information at the moment of exposure (Pantazi et al., 2021); and the effectiveness of various countermeasures and interventions that mitigate misinformation (IPIE, 2023).

This study is situated within another important strand of misinformation scholarship: the conditions under which individuals invest time and effort to verify the accuracy of news. This action represents a “normative ideal” as individuals who proactively engage in verification are adhering to good journalistic practices that mitigate the harmful impacts of misinformation (Edgerly et al., 2020). Various methods exist for verifying the news, from simply asking others to checking official sources (Chan, 2024), but the use of generative artificial intelligence (GenAI) chatbots based on large language models has been gaining traction in recent years. ChatGPT amassed over 700 million weekly active users by the end of 2025 (Sigalos, 2025), making it one of the fastest-adopted technologies in history. GenAI tools have significantly transformed the daily operations of numerous industries, with 75% of knowledge workers employing the technology in their workplaces (Microsoft, 2024), and

CONTACT Michael Chan  mcmchan@cuhk.edu.hk  School of Journalism and Communication, Chinese University of Hong Kong, New Asia College, Humanities Building, Shatin, N.T., Hong Kong SAR, China

© 2026 The Author(s). Published with license by Taylor & Francis Group, LLC.

This is an Open Access article distributed under the terms of the Creative Commons Attribution-NonCommercial-NoDerivatives License (<http://creativecommons.org/licenses/by-nc-nd/4.0/>), which permits non-commercial re-use, distribution, and reproduction in any medium, provided the original work is properly cited, and is not altered, transformed, or built upon in any way. The terms on which this article has been published allow the posting of the Accepted Manuscript in a repository by the author(s) or with their consent.

GenAI tools have become important “information intermediaries” for regular users seeking knowledge on science-related topics (Greussing et al., 2025). Within journalism, GenAI has also increasingly been integrated into the workflows of human fact-checkers, enabling more automated verification of suspicious news content (Lelo, 2023). From the technological side, studies have explored the effectiveness of AI algorithms in verifying false news in real time (e.g., Gondwe, 2025), while on the user side studies have examined whether people react to AI-generated versus human-generated fact checks differently (e.g., DeVerna et al., 2024).

Despite these studies, there is limited knowledge about the extent to which individuals are using GenAI chatbots for verifying news online and their motivations for doing so. This is an important avenue of research for two reasons. First, although GenAI chatbots are becoming more powerful with each iteration to detect misinformation (Gondwe, 2025), there are still substantive issues with the news content they produce, such as with accuracy and source credibility (EBU, 2025). This can pose a problem if an increasing number of people trust and use a tool that is unreliable. Second, the increasing use of AI for news verification signals an epistemic shift in which “truth becomes a probabilistic function rather than a deliberative outcome” (Shin, 2025, p. 2). It raises broader normative questions about who gets to define the truth and what unintended consequences may follow for journalism, politics, and society when judgments of truth are outsourced to automated systems. Therefore, an assessment of the proliferation of GenAI use for fact-checking is vital.

Drawing from the audience acts of authentication framework (Tandoc et al., 2018) and information processing theory (Chaiken, 1980) together with cross-national data on users’ news consumption behaviors (Newman et al., 2025), this study fills the gap by providing an initial assessment on the prevalence of GenAI chatbot use for news verification globally and the key predictors of such behavior.

Literature Review

Frameworks Explaining News Verification Behaviors

Individuals may believe misleading news to be factually true for several reasons, such as their propensity toward a truth bias (Levine, 2022), motivated reasoning (Nir, 2011), or simply not paying sufficient attention to it (Pennycook & Rand, 2019). Other individuals, however, might instead expend cognitive effort to discern the veracity of that news. Two complementary theoretical frameworks explain this behavior. The audience acts of authentication (3A) framework proposes a two-step process of possible responses when individuals come across news online they perceive to be suspicious (Tandoc et al., 2018). In the first step (“internal acts”), they rely on their personal experiences and specific source and message cues to determine veracity. If they are still unsure, they will then take the second step (“external acts”) by cross-checking external sources. Theoretically, this framework aligns with the broader psychological literature on information processing, such as the heuristic-systematic (HS) model of information processing (Chaiken, 1980). Similar to the 3A framework, the HS model consists of heuristic information processing that relies on individuals’ intuition or simple heuristic cues to evaluate information, and systematic information processing that involves deliberate cognitive effort to evaluate information. When GenAI is considered accurate and credible during systematic processing, individuals

will be more accepting of GenAI tools and services (Shin et al., 2024). While the HS model applies to a broader set of outcomes, the 3A framework is tailored toward two types of news verification. This includes external acts that are *interpersonal*, where individuals seek verification from someone within their social networks, such as a close friend or perceived subject expert; or *institutional*, which are sources “characterized by formal hierarchies and organization” (p. 2755) such as fact-checking organizations and the news media.

Whether GenAI chatbots can be regarded as an interpersonal or institutional channel is uncertain as there are still debates on whether GenAI can foster meaningful communication and relationships with humans (Smith et al., 2025). However, there is no denying their utility to also perform a range of functional tasks and sustain complex, human-like conversations over extended periods in real time. Research by Fletcher and Nielsen (2024) across six countries showed that 24% of respondents used AI chatbots for information seeking. The most common use (11%) was answering factual questions, which is understandable because GenAI chatbots can provide real-time answers. For example, mobile users who come across suspicious news from a social network site or messaging app can easily verify the content. This ability of GenAI chatbots to detect falsehood and their ease of use are akin to the concepts of high “performance expectancy” and low “effort expectancy” in the technology adoption literature, which increases the intention to adopt new GenAI technologies like ChatGPT (Ma et al., 2024). Indeed, research that compared deep learning models like BERT and GPT showed that they outperformed traditional machine learning models for detecting misinformation (Gondwe, 2025). Given that the use of GenAI chatbots for fact-checking is still a relatively new phenomenon, we first raise the following research question:

RQ1. How prevalent is the use of GenAI chatbots by users to fact-check news online that they consider suspicious?

Attitudes Toward Content Produced by GenAI Compared with Journalists

Positive attitudes toward technology significantly influence their adoption and usage (Kelly et al., 2023). A key factor for GenAI-based content is users’ perception of its credibility, defined as “an individual’s judgment of the veracity of the content of communication” (Appelman & Sundar, 2015, p. 63). Even before the rise of GenAI, journalism researchers have observed a growing trend in “automated journalism” within more structured news like financial news and weather reporting, which lend themselves well to automation (Graefe, 2016). This spurred research into whether users perceived automated news credibility differently from human-authored news credibility as any difference would have implications on how or whether media organizations and journalists publicly acknowledge the role of GenAI in the news-making process. A recent meta-analysis of 30 experimental studies indicated a difference, showing a small negative effect of automated news on content credibility perceptions (Wang & Huang, 2024). Furthermore, Lee and Liu (2025) found that fact checks against misinformation sourced to AI were considered less credible than those sourced to human experts across all misinformation topics.

One explanation for these results is that GenAI-generated news and fact checks violate user expectations, as they associate news production and verification with human

authorship (Waddell, 2017). This contradicts the “machine heuristic” of users’ perceptions of non-human technologies like machines and robots, which have historically been associated with attributes such as experts, efficient, unemotional, and objective (Yang et al., 2024). These characteristics align with the tenets of fact-checking. However, mainstream society appears yet to accept or feel comfortable with the idea of GenAI-produced news and fact-checking. In a study using latent class analysis that grouped a nationally representative US sample along the dimensions of perceived AI benefits and AI risks, Bao et al. (2022) did not find a “purely positive” group of individuals that perceived high benefits *and* low risks with AI. Instead, individuals who perceived significant benefits of AI were either in the “ambivalent” group, perceiving both high benefits and high risks, or in the “tepid” group, perceiving marginally higher benefits than risks of AI. Given the lower perceived credibility of GenAI relative to humans, it is understandable that GenAI chatbots for fact-checking as a relatively recent phenomenon is only likely to be considered by users who already perceive automated news to be more credible than news created by journalists. This reasoning is consistent with a study by Shin et al. (2024) using the HS model where they showed that those who scored higher in the perceived credibility of GenAI were more likely to use GenAI services to discern misinformation. Therefore, we raise the following hypothesis:

H1. Users who perceive that news produced by GenAI is more credible compared to human journalists are more likely to use GenAI chatbots to fact-check news online.

One notable limitation of previous experiments comparing human and GenAI stimuli is that they were framed the news as either completely created by human journalists or completely created by GenAI. In reality, even news content generated mostly by GenAI has some degree of human intervention, and human journalists have also leveraged the use of GenAI in the news producing process. Addressing this, Waddell (2019) compared how audiences compared news written collaboratively by human journalists and machines with news written by human journalists or machine in isolation, and found that the tandem condition elicited more news credibility. Specifically, this occurred through the complementary pathways of decreased bias, supporting the machine heuristic, as well as heightened anthropomorphism of human authors. This finding suggests the importance of considering user perceptions on the relative *degree* of human and GenAI collaboration. From an information-processing perspective, individuals hold more positive attitudes toward GenAI when heuristics related to fairness, accountability, and transparency of GenAI are more salient (Shin et al., 2024). Based on this reasoning, those who perceive GenAI to be more credible than human journalists should be more comfortable with news content co-produced by GenAI and human journalists, particularly when the news is produced *mostly* by GenAI because those individuals have preexisting positive GenAI-related heuristics and attitudes. Therefore, we raise the following hypothesis:

H2. Users who perceive that news produced by GenAI is more credible compared to human journalists are more comfortable with (a) GenAI produced news that has some human oversight, and (b) human journalist-produced news with GenAI assistance, though the relationship will be relatively stronger for the former relationship than the latter.

The conceptual distinction between news produced primarily with GenAI and news produced by journalists with the assistance of GenAI is an important one because they can relate to the use of GenAI chatbots for news verification in divergent ways. According to the theory of planned behavior (TPB), attitudes toward a behavior are formed by readily accessible beliefs about its expected consequences, which in turn produce positive or negative evaluations toward the behavior (Ajzen, 2020). Therefore, beliefs about the positive consequences of using GenAI tools for news verification are likely more readily accessible among individuals who are comfortable with AI-produced news with human oversight than those who are less comfortable. Conversely, the same belief of the positive consequences of GenAI use for news verification are less cognitively accessible for those who are more comfortable with human-produced news assisted by GenAI because this evaluation prioritizes comfort with human journalists. Therefore, we propose that:

H3. Users who are more comfortable with AI-produced news that has some assistance by human journalists are more likely to use GenAI chatbots to fact check news online.

H4. There is no relationship between users who are more comfortable with news produced by human journalists with some assistance from GenAI and using GenAI chatbots to fact-check news online.

Contextual Factors Shaping the Use of AI Chatbots for Fact-Checking

A significant concern regarding the global development and use of AI is its potential to exacerbate existing cross-national digital inequalities, such as between the Global North and Global South, reflecting broader international disparities in economic and political power (Lees, 2020). This exemplifies the importance of considering important structural factors at the country-level that can shape people's attitudes toward GenAI and willingness to use GenAI chatbots for fact-checking. At the policy and development levels, many more developed countries than developing countries have published national AI strategies in response to the transformational economic potential of AI (Demaidi, 2023). Developed countries are also better positioned to reap the benefits (and possible downsides) of AI as they have more established foundational digital and funding infrastructures, highly skilled workforces, and mature regulatory frameworks governing AI (Beckett & Yaseen, 2023; Cazzaniga et al., 2024). For example, in a comparative analysis of fact-checkers in Europe and Latin America, Cazzamatta and Sarisakaloglu (2025) found that while fact-checkers across both regions relied on a variety of commercially available GenAI tools to aid their work, there was a notable disparity in the development of proprietary in-house GenAI tools concentrated in Europe and supported by funding from major organizations such as Google and the European Union.

The picture is somewhat different at the user level. Recent industry and policy research have consistently shown that middle-income countries, such as India, Argentina, Brazil, and South Africa, were among the most frequent users of ChatGPT relative to the size of their economies, and they are more open and enthusiastic about AI when compared to more developed countries like the US and UK (Balaji et al., 2024; Google/Ipsos, 2025; Liu & Wang, 2024). Cross-national surveys also

showed that people in countries that score very high in the human development index (HDI) were more skeptical about AI than those who scored lower (UNDP, 2025a). There could be several reasons to explain the enthusiasm toward AI among the less developed countries. One possible reason is that GenAI offers them new capabilities that overcome the lack of infrastructure and expert labor. For example, medical professionals in Brazil combined GenAI and telemedicine to provide patient monitoring and care to people in rural areas where access to doctors are very limited (Bellanda et al., 2025).

In terms of political and media system dynamics, an important contextual factor is press freedom, as the degree of government intervention in the media system can shape the type and diversity of news and information that citizens receive (Park & Gil de Zúñiga, 2021). In media systems subject to stronger government influence, the press may promote predominantly positive narratives about AI that align with state economic goals and elite interests. By contrast, in freer media systems there is more scope to report on the potential risks and negative consequences of AI. This reasoning is consistent with a recent comparative content analysis of global AI coverage, which found that newspapers in countries with relatively lower press freedom (i.e., China, Thailand) tended to adopt predominantly positive sentiments toward AI, using news frames that highlighted its beneficial impact on the economy and employment. In contrast, newspapers in countries with higher levels of press freedom, such as the UK and US, exhibited more negative sentiments, emphasizing regulatory challenges and the ethical implications of AI (Ittefaq et al., 2025). The ways in which AI are framed by the news media can thus shape citizens' attitudes toward AI. As different countries vary in their levels of HDI and press freedom, it is important to make a preliminary examination of whether these contextual factors have a role in shaping GenAI attitudes and use. Accordingly, we raise the following research question:

RQ2: What are the roles of the human development index (HDI) and press freedom on GenAI attitudes and using GenAI chatbots for fact-checking?

How are GenAI-Related Attitudes Related to the Use of Other Fact-Check Methods?

So far, GenAI credibility perceptions and relative comfort with GenAI have been discussed in relation to the use of GenAI chatbots for fact-checking. However, the accessibility of these attitudes may also shape whether individuals turn to other fact-checking methods. For example, users may be more predisposed to using the more traditional institutional channels like fact checkers, official sources, and the news media if they consider human journalists to be more credible than GenAI chatbots. Conversely, these formal channels may be less appealing for those who perceive GenAI are more credible than journalists. These dynamics have practical implications on the extent to which actors responsible for these institutional channels disclose the use of AI as part of the news verification processes (Toff & Simon, 2024). To explore these possibilities, we raise the following general research question:

RQ3. To what extent do individuals' perceptions of GenAI credibility and the degree of GenAI involvement in news production shape the use of other more established fact-checking methods?

Methodology

Sample

Individual-level data for the study were derived from the *Reuters Institute Digital News Report 2025* ("DNR," Newman et al., 2025), which assesses how citizens in 48 countries around the world access and consume news as well as their attitudes toward news content and the media environment in their countries. The data is derived from country surveys distributed in their native languages to online panels administered by YouGov between January to February 2025. Individuals sign up to these panels and complete surveys in return for points that can be redeemed for money or other rewards. Quota sampling was adopted so that respondents comprising the samples were representative of age, gender, and region of residence. The question on AI Credibility was only asked in 26 of the 48 countries so they comprised the sample for this study ($N = 50,376$ respondents). They included those in Europe (Austria, Belgium, Czechia, Denmark, Finland, France, Germany, Ireland, Italy, Netherlands, Norway, Poland, Portugal, Spain, Sweden, Switzerland, UK); Asia-Pacific (Australia, India, Japan, Korea, South Africa); the Americas (Argentina, Brazil, Canada, US); and South Africa.¹

Individual-Level Measures

Dependent Variables

Fact-Checking. Respondents responded to the question: "Imagine you came across something important in the news online that you suspect may be false, misleading, or fake. If you decided you wanted to check it, where would you usually go? Please select all that apply" (Underlines in original). One option from the list was *AI chatbot*, which was operationalized as a binary measure (Yes/No). The other measures of fact-checking were created by grouping several response options together. They included *Connections* (i.e., "someone I know and trust personally," "online influencer/personality," "comments from other users"); *Fact checker* (i.e., "a fact-checking website," "fact checker"); *Expert* (i.e., "specialist website or expert," "Wikipedia"); *Official* (i.e., "official sources," "government website," "politician"); and *News Media* (i.e., "traditional news outlet/journalist," "other/alternative news outlet). The measures were further dichotomized so that "Yes" represented the use of at least one method in each category.²

Independent Variables

Perceived GenAI Credibility. Respondents were prompted with the question: "In general, do you think that news produced mostly by artificial intelligence, albeit with some human

¹More information on the methodology and the full online questionnaire is available from the report website: <https://reutersinstitute.politics.ox.ac.uk/digital-news-report/2025/methodology>.

²This reflected the study's focus on the use of a specific fact-check method rather than its intensity. Moreover, a very small percentage of respondents reported using the same fact-check method more than once.

oversight, is likely to be more or less of each of the following, compared to news produced entirely by a human journalist?” (Underline in original). They then indicated the likelihood based on a 5-point scale from 1 = “Much less” to 5 = “Much more” for three answer choices: *unbiased*, *accurate*, and *trustworthy*. We selected these three measures because they are considered interrelated dimensions of media credibility (Flanagin & Metzger, 2000), and they were averaged to form a scale of perceived AI credibility ($\alpha = .78$).

Comfort with GenAI Produced News. Respondents were asked to what extent they felt comfortable (1 = “Very uncomfortable” to 5 = “Very comfortable”) with news that is produced “mostly by artificial intelligence (AI) with some human oversight.”

Comfort with GenAI Assisted News. Respondents were asked to what extent they felt comfortable (1 = “Very uncomfortable” to 5 = “Very comfortable”) with news that is produced “mostly by a human journalist with some help from artificial intelligence (AI).”

Country Level Variables

Human Development Index (HDI). Measures of HDI of each country in the sample was taken from the *Human Development Report*, published by the United Nations Development Programme (UNDP, 2025b). The HDI is a standardized composite index composed of three dimensions: lifespan, education, and per capita income. The values ranged from .69 for South Africa to .97 for Norway and Switzerland.

Press Freedom. Measures of press freedom for each country were taken from the 2025 *World Press Freedom Index* published by Reporters without Borders (RSF, 2025). The index is composed of five contextual indicators (political context, legal framework, economic context, sociocultural context and safety) to arrive at a score from 0 to 100. In the study sample, the score ranged from 32.96 for India to 92.31 for Norway.

Controls

We included an extensive range of control variables that have been shown by a systematic review of the literature to be relevant factors predicting verification behaviors (Yu & Shen, 2023), and we organized them below according to their typology.

Demographics. This comprised the variables of *age*, *gender* (1 = male, 2 = female), *education* (1 = no formal education to 10 = Doctoral or equivalent degree), and *income* (1 = low to 3 = high).

Perceptions. This included *news trust* and *concern with fake news* where respondents indicated their level of agreement (1 = strongly disagree to 5 = strongly agree) to the questions: “I think you can trust most news most of the time” and “Thinking about online news, I am concerned about what is real and what is fake on the internet.”

Behaviors. Respondents indicated their frequency of *news use* (1 = never to 10 = more than 10 times a day) and whether *social media* was their main source of news in the previous week (Yes/No). A *share content* on social media measure was created by adding Yes/No

answers to the questions on whether respondents commented on a news story on social media and shared a news story using messaging apps (0 = no sharing to 2 = shared on social media and through messaging apps).

Literacy. A binary measure (Yes/No) of *news literacy* was created based on whether the respondent has “ever received any education or training on how to use news (e.g., critical media understanding, analyzing sources, news literacy etc.)?”

Others. Respondents indicated their level of *political interest* (1 = not at all interested to 5 = extremely interested), and their political *ideology* (1 = very left wing to 7 = very right wing).

Results

Prevalence of Fact-Checking Behaviors

Figure 1 below summarizes the prevalence of fact-checking behaviors the respondents reported using when they encountered potentially misleading news content online (RQ1). On average 59.2% of all respondents have engaged in fact-checking, ranging from 40.9% in Japan to 70.6% in Norway. The use of news media was the most popular method of fact-checking (47.1%; 37.0% in Japan to 61.1% in Finland), followed by the use of officials (43.0%; 32.4% in Korea to 58.7% in Finland); interpersonal channels (31.5%; 22.8 in Japan to 49.0% in India); experts (28.5%; 20.4% in Brazil to 41.6% in India), and then fact-checkers (28.2%; 8.6% in Japan to 41.3% in Norway). In relation to the use of AI chatbots the average of 7.7% (2.6% in the UK to 20.1% in India) was the lowest among all the methods of fact-checking.

Figure 2 further shows the percentage of respondents who, on average, answered “somewhat more” or “much more” on whether mostly AI with some human oversight is more credible than news produced by a human journalist (12.8%; 4.6% in the UK to 30.3% in South Africa); and “somewhat comfortable” and “very comfortable” with news produced

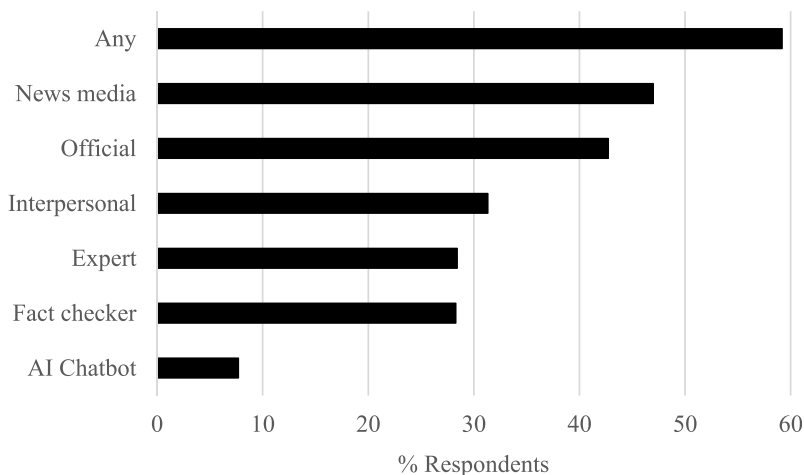


Figure 1. Use of different fact checking methods.

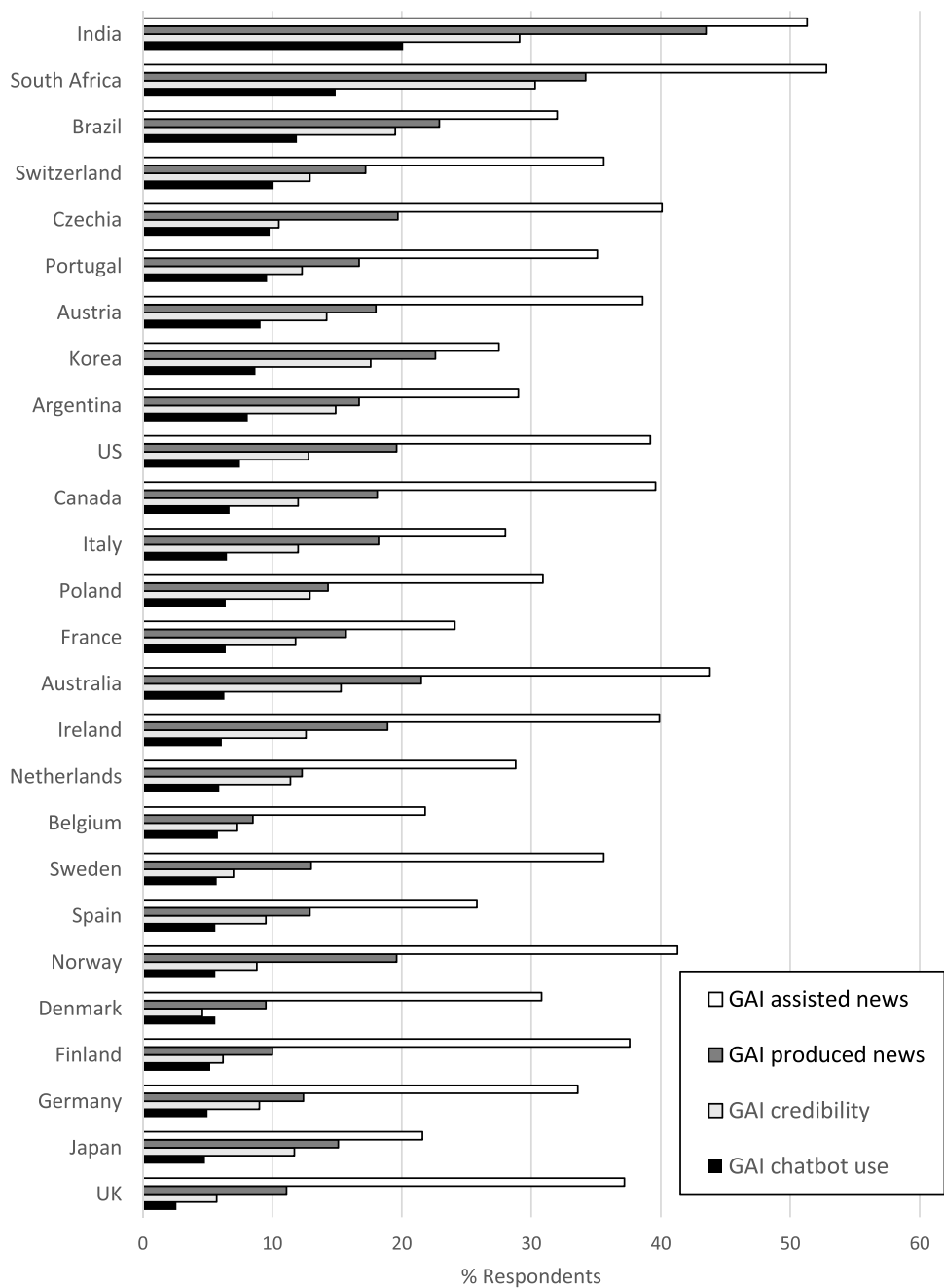


Figure 2. GenAI credibility, GenAI comfort, and GenAI chatbot use for fact-checking by country. Notes: AI Chatbot use = % respondents who use it to check news veracity online; Other measures = % respondents scoring 4 or 5 on the scale (1-5).

most by AI with human input (17.8%; 8.5% in Belgium to 43.5% in India) and news produced by humans with AI assistance (34.7%; 21.6 in Japan to 52.8% in South Africa). Both variables were positively correlated ($r = .48, p < .001$).

Predicting GenAI Attitudes and GenAI Chatbot Use for Fact-Checking

Multilevel regression was employed for the analyses, as the respondent data were nested within multiple countries. Linear mixed models were implemented via the *glmmTMB* R package, with a binomial distribution for the binary outcomes. We first ran null models, which included only the intercept and the clustering variable (country) to examine the variance of the outcomes accounted by country. The intraclass correlations (ICC) were 5% for GenAI credibility, GenAI-produced news, and use of GenAI chatbots; and 3% for GenAI-assisted news, which support the use of multilevel modeling.

To facilitate comparisons, all the individual and country-level predictors were standardized and included in the full multilevel models as fixed effects. Table 1 below summarizes the results. As expected, credibility of GenAI over human journalists positively predicted GenAI chatbot use for fact-checking, supporting H1. Moreover, GenAI credibility was positively related to both comfort with GenAI-produced and GenAI-assisted news, with GenAI-produced news exhibiting the larger coefficient. H2a and H2b were supported. Finally, comfort with GenAI-produced news predicted GenAI chatbot use for fact-checking, but comfort with GenAI-assisted news did not, supporting H3 and H4. For the country level variables (RQ2), countries with lower HDI were associated with increased GenAI credibility, comfort with GenAI-produced news, and the use of GenAI chatbot for

Table 1. Multilevel models predicting GenAI attitudes and GenAI fact-checking.

	GenAI credibility	GenAI-assisted news	GenAI-produced news	GenAI fact-checking
<i>Individual-level</i>				
Gender (Female)	-.02**	-.00	-.05***	-.08***
Age	-.12***	-.05***	-.08***	-.31***
Education	-.03***	.04***	.01*	-.00
Income	-.01	.05***	.01	.05**
Political interest	.01*	.04***	.03***	.08***
Ideology (Liberal)	.07***	-.03***	.01*	-.05**
News use	-.00	-.02**	-.01	-.01
News trust	.14***	.15***	.09***	-.09***
Social media	.01*	-.01*	-.00	-.03
Fake news concern	-.01**	-.00	-.06***	.00
News literacy	.03***	.02***	.05***	.09***
Share content	.06***	.03***	.03***	.18***
GenAI credibility		.27***	.44***	.29***
GenAI assisted news				.00
GenAI produced news				.29***
<i>Country-level</i>				
HDI	-.19*	-.06	-.05*	-.14**
Press freedom	-.10**	.05	-.06*	.06
Respondents	34,036	34,036	34,036	34,036
Countries	26	26	26	26
Marginal R ²	.09	.13	.26	.20
Conditional R ²	.10	.15	.27	.21

*** = $p < .001$, ** = $p < .01$, * = $p < .05$; Standardized beta coefficients are displayed.

Table 2. Multilevel models predicting GenAI attitudes and other fact-checking methods.

	INTERPERSONAL		INSTITUTIONAL		
	Connections	Expert	Fact Checker	Official	News Media
<i>Individual-level</i>					
Gender (Female)	-.01	-.07***	-.05***	.01	-.03***
Age	-.04***	-.05***	.02	-.07***	.01
Education	-.01	.02	.06***	.08***	.06***
Income	-.03**	-.01	.04***	.05***	.04***
Political interest	.05***	.07***	.10***	.04***	.10***
Ideology (Liberal)	-.01	-.04***	-.12***	-.07***	-.03***
News use	-.02*	-.02	-.03*	-.05***	-.07***
News trust	-.03**	.02	.01	.09***	.07***
Social media	.04***	.01	-.03**	-.03***	-.01
Fake news concern	.06***	.02*	.08***	.05***	.02**
News literacy	.06***	.03***	.04***	.04***	.02**
Share content	.12***	.10***	.10***	.05***	.06***
GenAI credibility	.03*	.02*	-.02*	-.04***	-.05***
GenAI assisted news	.01	.03**	.09***	.08***	.07***
GenAI produced news	.01	-.01	-.07***	-.09***	-.08***
<i>Country-level</i>					
HDI	-.06	-.02	-.08*	.03	.00
Press freedom	.02	.01	.08	.02	.02
Respondents	34,036	34,036	34,036	34,036	34,036
Countries	26	26	26	26	26
Marginal R ²	.04	.03	.07	.06	.06
Conditional R ²	.05	.04	.11	.07	.06

*** = $p < .001$, ** = $p < .01$, * = $p < .05$; Standardized beta coefficients are displayed.

fact-checking. Moreover, lower levels of press freedom were associated with increased GenAI credibility, and comfort with GenAI-produced news with some human oversight.

To examine for the possibility of cross-level interactions (i.e., whether the individual-level relationships varied at different levels of the country variable), we reran the models with the addition of six interaction terms that crossed HDI and press freedom with GenAI credibility, GenAI-produced news, and GenAI-assisted news. Only one of the six interactions were significant, such that the relationship between GenAI-produced news and using GenAI chatbots for fact-checking was stronger under the condition of higher HDI ($B = .06$, $p < .01$). However, as the 95% confidence levels showed degrees of overlap at all levels of HDI, no substantive conclusions can be made about its moderating role on the individual-level relationships.

Predicting the Other Methods of Fact-Checking

RQ3 focused on how the GenAI-related attitudes are related to the other methods of fact-checking. As summarized in Table 2, GenAI credibility was positively related to both interpersonal methods but negatively related to the three institutional methods. Comfort with GenAI-assisted news was related to the use of experts and institutional methods for fact-checking, while comfort with GenAI produced news was negatively related to the three institutional methods of fact-checking.

Discussion

Over 59% of the respondents in this study engaged in at least one method of external authentication of news content. If this is viewed more pessimistically, it could be indicative of information environments where the news is perceived by many with some degree of skepticism or distrust, necessitating fact-checks to determine the veracity of news. Yet, it can also be viewed positively because fact-checking is a “coveted journalistic practice” as news consumers take charge of their own news experiences (Edgerly et al., 2020, p. 54).

Before discussing the main findings, it is useful to first compare the results of the control variables with the meta-analysis by Yu and Shen (2023). In line with their analysis, this study found that individuals who are politically engaged, actively consume news on social media, and possess higher news literacy are more likely to engage in *all* methods of news verification. This suggests that these factors are fundamental predictors of news verification, regardless of the specific method employed. More specific to using GenAI for fact-checking, the study revealed that males and individuals with lower trust in news sources were more inclined to engage in this behavior, also aligning with Yu and Shen’s findings. The one difference in this study was that younger people, rather than those older, predicted the use of GenAI for fact-checking. This is not too surprising as younger people are more inclined to adopt GenAI tools (Fletcher & Nielsen, 2024). Future research on GenAI tools for fact-checking should therefore incorporate these factors, either as control variables or as components of more developed explanatory frameworks.

In terms of frequency, GenAI chatbots for fact-checking ranked the lowest among all fact-checking methods. This is not too surprising as GenAI is still a new technology used predominantly by younger people. Therefore, this study serves as an important starting baseline for measuring its use, which can subsequently be compared with the same measures in future iterations of the Reuter’s Digital News Report. Cross-nationally, the findings showed different degrees of usage. Notably, India (20%), South Africa (15%), and Brazil (12%) have relatively high use of GenAI for fact-checking. These findings align with previous industry and policy reports that highlighted both attitude and usage gaps in general GenAI use between middle-income countries and highly developed nations (e.g. Liu & Wang, 2024; UNDP, 2025a), whereas countries like the UK (2.6%), Japan (5%), Germany (5%), Finland (5%), and Denmark (6%) in this study have considerably lower use of GenAI for fact-checking. The negative relationship between country-level HDI and GenAI for fact-checking further supports the previous findings. More cross-national comparative research is needed to explain this AI enthusiasm gap, though some studies suggest that discourses surrounding AI in developing countries are more focused on its potential to realize social-economic benefits in areas like healthcare and education that can aid in national development. Whereas discourses in developed countries are more restrained, focusing on AI risks and ethics (Mohammadi & Maghsoudi, 2025). The valence of such discourses can potentially shape how the general public perceive GenAI technologies, which influence adoption (Chan et al., 2026).

An important finding of this study is the role of perceived credibility of news produced by GenAI relative to human journalists, as it was the stronger predictor of GenAI use for fact-checking ($\beta = .29$) after age ($\beta = -.31$). This is consistent with the previous findings of Shin et al. (2024) showing that higher GenAI credibility predicted the use of GenAI for discerning misinformation. Again, this pro-GenAI bias was most evident among

respondents in middle-income countries (e.g., South Africa = 30%, India = 29%, and Brazil = 20%) compared to higher-income countries (e.g., Denmark = 5%, UK = 6%, Finland = 6%, Sweden = 7%).

The study also underscores the importance of examining the degree of integration between GenAI and human journalists in news production, rather than treating them as mutually exclusive, as several past experiments have done. There was a moderate correlation ($r = .48, p < .001$) between comfort with GenAI-produced news with human oversight and human-produced news with GenAI assistance, which was consistent across all countries studied, ranging from $r = .39$ in Finland to $r = .60$ in France. These results suggest that attitudes toward GenAI-produced and GenAI-assisted news are complementary rather than opposing concepts. Both attitudes were linked to perceived credibility of GenAI-produced news, though the relationship was stronger for GenAI-produced news. Notably, only comfort with GenAI-produced news predicted GenAI chatbot use for fact-checking, with a coefficient equal to perceived GenAI credibility ($\beta = .29$). This aligns with the Theory of Planned Behavior (TPB): individuals with more positive attitudes toward GenAI relative to humans are more likely to use GenAI for fact-checking because they expect the behavior to yield positive outcomes.

This reasoning gains tentative support when examining the relationship between attitudes and the use of other fact-checking methods. For instance, greater comfort with human-produced news that includes some AI assistance is positively associated with the use of experts, fact-checkers, government officials, and the news media. Conversely, comfort with GenAI-produced news and perceived GenAI credibility were negatively associated with these institutional methods. This suggests that individuals with pro-GenAI biases are less inclined to use institutional fact-checking approaches. If so, these findings pose a “dilemma” for institutional actors regarding how much to disclose about AI use in their verification processes (Toff & Simon, 2024). Over-disclosure may alienate those who prefer human-produced news, while under-disclosure may discourage those more comfortable with GenAI-produced news from using these services. The study findings indicate that a majority of respondents were either comfortable or ambivalent toward GenAI-assisted news (72%), compared to 26% who were uncomfortable. This suggests that experts, fact-checkers, and news organizations can disclose GenAI use with reasonable confidence. However, in the longer term, they may need to carefully balance disclosure as GenAI technologies become more integrated into newsrooms and fact-checking practices (Cazzamatta & Sarisakaloğlu, 2025; Nanz et al., 2025), especially as general attitudes toward GenAI in news and content production might improve in the future.

Interestingly, lower levels of HDI and press freedom were associated with higher perceived GenAI credibility and greater comfort with GenAI-produced news. This finding further supports the argument that country-level economic, social, political, and media system factors play a significant role in shaping GenAI-related attitudes and behaviors. HDI and press freedom were strongly correlated ($r = .68$), suggesting they serve complementary roles. In particular, lower-income countries may be better positioned to promote pro-AI narratives on economic development among citizens when governments exert greater control and influence over the news media (Ittefaq et al., 2025).

Certain limitations and wider implications of the study should be acknowledged. First, as the study relied on available secondary data, it was not possible to test established theoretical models, such as the Technology Acceptance Model (TAM) (Davis et al., 1989), to

examine the antecedents of GenAI use for fact-checking. Nevertheless, the study incorporated an extensive set of control variables based on prior literature on news verification and identified the most salient ones, along with the study variables, that could be integrated into TAM or other adoption models in future research. Second, the scope of this study is limited to external acts of authentication, which occur only at the stage when users perceive a piece of news as suspicious. Third, while the two country-level variables partially captured economic, political, and media factors shaping individual-level behavior, future cross-national studies could explore other pertinent factors, such as cultural influences. Fourth, computational studies suggest that GenAI is becoming more accurate at detecting misinformation (Gondwe, 2025; Kuznetsova et al., 2024). Newsrooms, journalists, and citizens are integrating GenAI into news production and verification processes to varying degrees (Nanz et al., 2025). This raises a broader normative concern: truth and facts are increasingly delegated to machines rather than humans (Shin, 2025). Interviews with journalists who were early adopters of GenAI indicated that while GenAI improved efficiency, they expressed concerns about potential harm to accuracy and credibility both for their work and the profession as a whole (Cools & Diakopoulos, 2024). This can be a problem in the longer term as more people perceive potentially unreliable GenAI-generated content to be credible. Therefore, future studies should not only continue to examine the conditions in which people use GenAI for fact-checking (demand-side) but also the broader normative implications of the behavior for journalistic practice (supply-side) given that there are still concerns about the veracity of news content generated by GenAI (EBU, 2025). Despite these limitations, this study provides an important initial snapshot of GenAI use for fact-checking from the user perspective. It builds on previous meta-analyses and theoretical literature to identify prominent antecedents predicting its use, as well as attitudes toward varying levels of GenAI involvement in news production.

Acknowledgments

The author wishes to thank the Reuters Institute for the Study of Journalism at the University of Oxford for providing the data for this study. The data is based on the Digital News Report 2025.

Disclosure Statement

No potential conflict of interest was reported by the author(s).

Notes on contributor

Michael Chan (PhD, Chinese University of Hong Kong) is a Professor at the School of Journalism & Communication, CUHK, Hong Kong. His research examines the political and social consequences of digital media and communications technologies.

References

- Ajzen, I. (2020). The theory of planned behavior: Frequently asked questions. *Human Behavior and Emerging Technologies*, 2(4), 314–324. <https://doi.org/10.1002/hbe2.195>

- Appelman, A., & Sundar, S. S. (2015). Measuring message credibility. *Journalism and Mass Communication Quarterly*, 93(1), 59–79. <https://doi.org/10.1177/1077699015606057>
- Balaji, N., Bharadwaj, A., Apotheker, J., & Moore, M. (2024). *Consumers Know More About AI Than Business Leaders Think*. <https://www.bcg.com/publications/2024/consumers-know-more-about-ai-than-businesses-think>
- Bao, L., Krause, N. M., Calice, M. N., Scheufele, D. A., Wirz, C. D., Brossard, D., & Xenos, M. A. (2022). Whose AI? How different publics think about AI and its social impacts. *Computers in Human Behavior*, 130, 107182. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.chb.2022.107182>
- Beckett, C., & Yaseen, M. (2023). *Generating Change A global survey of what news organisations are doing with AI*. Retrieved from London: <https://www.journalism.ai/info/s/Generating-Change--The-Journalism-AI-report--English.pdf>
- Bellanda, V. C. F., Medeiros, A. S., & Ferraz, D. A. (2025). Transforming Brazilian healthcare with AI: Progress and future perspectives. *Discover Health Systems*, 4(1). <https://doi.org/10.1007/s44250-025-00227-5>
- Cazzamatta, R., & Sarisakaloglu, A. (2025). Mapping global emerging scholarly research and practices of AI-supported fact-checking tools in Journalism. *Journalism Practice*, 1–23. <https://doi.org/10.1080/17512786.2025.2463470>
- Cazzaniga, M., Jaumotte, F., Li, L., Melina, G., Panton, A. J., Pizzinelli, C., Rockall, E.J., & Tavares, M. M. (2024). *Gen-AI: Artificial Intelligence and the Future of Work*. IMF Staff Discussion Note SDN2024/001.
- Chaiken, S. (1980). Heuristic versus systematic information processing and the use of source versus message cues in persuasion. *Journal of Personality & Social Psychology*, 39(5), 752–766. <https://doi.org/10.1037/0022-3514.39.5.752>
- Chan, M. (2024). News literacy, fake news recognition, and authentication behaviors after exposure to fake news on social media. *New Media and Society*, 26(8), 4669–4688. <https://doi.org/10.1177/14614448221127675>
- Chan, M., Matthes, J., & Bojić, L. (2026). Examining perceived generative AI valence on social media and its implications on generative AI attitudes and uses among young adults. A cross-national comparison. *Online Media and Global Communication*. <https://doi.org/10.1515/omgc-2025-0033>
- Chan, M., Yi, J., Vaccari, C., & Yamamoto, M. (2025). A cross-national examination of the effects of accuracy nudges and content veracity labels on belief in and sharing of misleading news. *Journal of Computer-Mediated Communication*, 30(4). <https://doi.org/10.1093/jcmc/zmaf009>
- Cools, H., & Diakopoulos, N. (2024). Uses of generative AI in the newsroom: Mapping journalists' perceptions of perils and possibilities. *Journalism Practice*, 20(3), 1–19. <https://doi.org/10.1080/17512786.2024.2394558>
- Davis, F. D., Bagozzi, R. P., & Warshaw, P. R. (1989). User acceptance of computer technology: A comparison of two theoretical models. *Management Science*, 35(8), 982–1003. <https://doi.org/10.1287/mnsc.35.8.982>
- Demaidi, M. N. (2023). Artificial intelligence national strategy in a developing country. *AI & Society*, 40(2), 423–435. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s00146-023-01779-x>
- DeVerna, M. R., Yan, H. Y., Yang, K. C., & Menczer, F. (2024). Fact-checking information from large language models can decrease headline discernment. *Proceedings of the National Academy of Sciences*, 121(50), e2322823121. <https://doi.org/10.1073/pnas.2322823121>
- EBU. (2025). *News Integrity in AI Assistants: An international PSM study*. <https://www.bbc.co.uk/mediacentre/documents/news-integrity-in-ai-assistants-report.pdf>
- Ecker, U. K. H., Lewandowsky, S., Cook, J., Schmid, P., Fazio, L. K., Brashier, N., Kendeou, P., Vraga, E. K., & Amazeen, M. A. (2022). The psychological drivers of misinformation belief and its resistance to correction. *Nature Reviews Psychology*, 1(1), 13–29. <https://doi.org/10.1038/s44159-021-00006-y>
- Edgerly, S., Mourão, R. R., Thorson, E., & Tham, S. M. (2020). When do audiences verify? How perceptions about message and source influence audience verification of news headlines. *Journalism and Mass Communication Quarterly*, 97(1), 52–71. <https://doi.org/10.1177/1077699019864680>

- Flanagin, A. J., & Metzger, M. J. (2000). Perceptions of internet information credibility. *Journalism and Mass Communication Quarterly*, 77(3), 515–540. <https://doi.org/10.1177/107769900007700304>
- Fletcher, R., & Nielsen, R. K. (2024). What does the public in six countries think of generative AI in news?
- Gondwe, G. (2025). Can AI outsmart fake news? Detecting misinformation with AI models in real-time. *Emerging Media*, 3(2), 252–274. <https://doi.org/10.1177/27523543251325902>
- Google/Ipsos. (2025). *Our life with AI: From innovation to application*. <https://www.ipsos.com/en-us/google-ipsos-multi-country-ai-survey-2025>
- Graefe, A. (2016). *Guide to automated journalism*. Tow Center for Digital Journalism.
- Greussing, E., Guenther, L., Baram-Tsabari, A., Dabran-Zivan, S., Jonas, E., Klein-Avraham, I., Taddicken, M., Agergaard, T. E., Beets, B., Brossard, D., Chakraborty, A., Fage-Butler, A., Huang, C. J., Kankaria, S., Lo, Y. Y., Nielsen, K. H., Riedlinger, M., & Song, H. (2025). The perception and use of generative AI for science-related information search: Insights from a cross-national study. *Public Understanding of Science*, 34(5), 599–615. <https://doi.org/10.1177/09636625241308493>
- IPIE. (2023). *Countermeasures for mitigating digital misinformation: A systematic review (SR2023.1)*. Retrieved from Zurich, Switzerland.
- Ittefaq, M., Zain, A., Arif, R., Ala-Uddin, M., Ahmad, T., & Iqbal, A. (2025). Global news media coverage of artificial intelligence (AI): A comparative analysis of frames, sentiments, and trends across 12 countries. *Telematics and Informatics*, 96, 102223. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.tele.2024.102223>
- Kelly, S., Kaye, S.-A., & Oviedo-Trespalcacios, O. (2023). What factors contribute to the acceptance of artificial intelligence? A systematic review. *Telematics and Informatics*, 77. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.tele.2022.101925>
- Kuznetsova, E., Makhortykh, M., Vziatysheva, V., Stolze, M., Baghumyan, A., & Urman, A. (2024). In generative AI we trust: Can chatbots effectively verify political information? *Journal of Computational Social Science*, 8(1). <https://doi.org/10.1007/s42001-024-00338-8>
- Lee, S. Y., & Liu, W. (2025). Exploring generative AI in the misinformation era: Impacts as a misinformation source and fact-checker on belief in the information. *Telematics and Informatics*, 101, 102308. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.tele.2025.102308>
- Lees, N. (2020). The brandt line after forty years: The more north-south relations change, the more they stay the same? *Review of International Studies*, 47(1), 85–106. <https://doi.org/10.1017/s026021052000039x>
- Lelo, T. (2023). Fostering artificial intelligence to face misinformation: Discourses and practices of automated fact-checking in Brazil. *Journalism and Mass Communication Quarterly*, 101(2), 320–345. <https://doi.org/10.1177/10776990231207963>
- Levine, T. R. (2022). Truth-default theory and the psychology of lying and deception detection. *Current Opinion in Psychology*, 47, 101380. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.copsyc.2022.101380>
- Liu, Y., & Wang, H. (2024). Who on earth is using generative AI? *World Development*, 199, 107260.
- Ma, J., Wang, P., Li, B., Wang, T., Pang, X. S., & Wang, D. (2024). Exploring user adoption of ChatGPT: A technology acceptance model perspective. *International Journal of Human-Computer Interaction*, 41(2), 1431–1445. <https://doi.org/10.1080/10447318.2024.2314358>
- McCoy, J., Rahman, T., & Somer, M. (2018). Polarization and the global crisis of democracy: Common patterns, dynamics, and pernicious consequences for democratic politics. *The American Behavioral Scientist*, 62(1), 16–42. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0002764218759576>
- Microsoft. (2024). *2024 Work Trend Index Annual Report*. <https://www.microsoft.com/en-us/worklab/work-trend-index/ai-at-work-is-here-now-comes-the-hard-part>
- Mohammadi, A., & Maghsoudi, M. (2025). Bridging perspectives on artificial intelligence: A comparative analysis of hopes and concerns in developed and developing countries. *AI & Society*, 40(7), 5713–5734. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s00146-025-02331-9>
- Nanz, A., Binder, A., & Matthes, J. (2025). AI in the newsroom: Does the public trust automated journalism and will they pay for it? *Journalism Studies*, 26(14), 1–20. <https://doi.org/10.1080/1461670x.2025.2547301>

- Newman, N., Arguedas, A. R., Robertson, C. T., Nielsen, R. K., & Fletcher, R. (2025). *Digital News Report 2025*. Retrieved from Oxford: <http://www.digitalnewsreport.org/>
- Nir, L. (2011). Motivated reasoning and public opinion perception. *Public Opinion Quarterly*, 75(3), 504–532. <https://doi.org/10.1093/poq/nfq076>
- Pantazi, M., Hale, S., & Klein, O. (2021). Social and cognitive aspects of the vulnerability to political misinformation. *Political Psychology*, 42(S1), 267–304. <https://doi.org/10.1111/pops.12797>
- Park, C. S., & Gil de Zúñiga, H. (2021). Learning about politics from mass media and social media: Moderating roles of press freedom and public service broadcasting in 11 countries. *International Journal of Public Opinion Research*, 33(2), 315–335. <https://doi.org/10.1093/ijpor/edaa021>
- Pennycook, G., & Rand, D. G. (2019). Lazy, not biased: Susceptibility to partisan fake news is better explained by lack of reasoning than by motivated reasoning. *Cognition*, 188, 39–50. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.cognition.2018.06.011>
- RSF. (2025). *World Press Freedom Index*. <https://rsf.org/en/index>
- Shin, D. (2025). Automating epistemology: How AI reconfigures truth, authority, and verification. *AI & Society*, 41(2), 1553–1559. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s00146-025-02560-y>
- Shin, D., Koerber, A., & Lim, J. S. (2024). Impact of misinformation from generative AI on user information processing: How people understand misinformation from generative AI. *New Media and Society*, 27(7), 4017–4047. <https://doi.org/10.1177/14614448241234040>
- Sigalos, M. (2025). *OpenAI's ChatGPT to hit 700 million weekly users, up 4x from last year*. <https://www.cnbc.com/2025/08/04/openai-chatgpt-700-million-users.html>
- Smith, M. G., Bradbury, T. N., & Karney, B. R. (2025). Can generative AI chatbots emulate human connection? A relationship science perspective. *Perspect Psychol Sci*, 17456916251351306. <https://doi.org/10.1177/17456916251351306>
- Tandoc, E. C., Ling, R., Westlund, O., Duffy, A., Goh, D., & Zheng Wei, L. (2018). Audiences' acts of authentication in the age of fake news: A conceptual framework. *New Media and Society*, 20(8), 2745–2763. <https://doi.org/10.1177/1461444817731756>
- Toff, B., & Simon, F. M. (2024). “Or they could just not use it?": The dilemma of AI disclosure for audience trust in news. *International Journal of Press/Politics*. <https://doi.org/10.1177/19401612241308697>
- UNDP. (2025a). *2025 Global Survey on AI and Human Development*. <https://hdr.undp.org/data-center/2025-global-survey-ai-and-human-development>
- UNDP. (2025b). *Human Development Report*. <https://hdr.undp.org/system/files/documents/global-report-document/hdr2025reporten.pdf>
- Valenzuela, S., Halpern, D., & Aranedá, F. (2021). A downward spiral? A panel study of misinformation and media trust in Chile. *International Journal of Press/Politics*, 27(2), 353–373. <https://doi.org/10.1177/19401612211025238>
- Waddell, T. F. (2017). A robot wrote this? *Digital Journalism*, 6(2), 236–255. <https://doi.org/10.1080/21670811.2017.1384319>
- Waddell, T. F. (2019). Can an algorithm reduce the perceived bias of news? Testing the effect of machine attribution on news readers' evaluations of bias, anthropomorphism, and credibility. *Journalism and Mass Communication Quarterly*, 96(1), 82–100. <https://doi.org/10.1177/1077699018815891>
- Wang, S., & Huang, G. (2024). The impact of machine authorship on news audience perceptions: A meta-analysis of experimental studies. *Communication Research*, 51(7), 815–842. <https://doi.org/10.1177/00936502241229794>
- Wasserman, H., & Madrid-Morales, D. (2019). An exploratory study of “fake news” and media trust in Kenya, Nigeria and South Africa. *African Journalism Studies*, 40(1), 107–123. <https://doi.org/10.1080/23743670.2019.1627230>
- Yang, H., Sundar, S. S., & Joinson, A. (2024). Machine heuristic: Concept explication and development of a measurement scale. *Journal of Computer-Mediated Communication*, 29(6). <https://doi.org/10.1093/jcmc/zmae019>
- Yu, W., & Shen, F. (2023). Mapping verification behaviors in the post-truth era: A systematic review. *New Media and Society*, 26(3), 1703–1727. <https://doi.org/10.1177/14614448231191138>